



**PERIPHERAL INSECURITY IN NIGERIA: EXAMINING THE
RELATIONSHIP BETWEEN CONFLICT EXPOSURE,
SOCIOECONOMIC DEPRIVATION, AND SETTLEMENT
CHARACTERISTICS**



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ABSTRACT

This study examines the geographic relationship between recorded insecurity, socioeconomic deprivation, settlement structure, and household-reported security experiences across Nigeria's 36 states and the Federal Capital Territory (FCT). Using an exploratory quantitative design, the study integrates 2025 Armed Conflict Location & Event Data (ACLED) on recorded events and fatalities with state-level multidimensional poverty incidence from the 2021/22 Nigeria Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey, WorldPop 2025 urban-cluster footprint data, and household-reported security-related shocks from the National Bureau of Statistics. Recorded events and fatalities are standardized using 2022 population projections, while Pearson and Spearman correlations, multiple linear regression, and sensitivity analyses are used to examine geographic associations. The findings show substantial variation in recorded insecurity across states, with event frequency and fatality intensity displaying distinct geographic patterns. The relationship between multidimensional poverty and recorded insecurity is relatively weak and statistically uncertain at the state level. The urban-cluster footprint shows a negative bivariate association with both event and fatality rates, particularly in rank-order analysis, although this relationship becomes less certain in multivariable and sensitivity analyses. Household-reported security shocks show the strongest association with recorded insecurity, and this relationship remains when Borno is excluded. The study does not establish causal relationships and is limited by its state-level design, temporal differences between datasets, and the measurement characteristics of event-based and household data. Overall, the findings indicate that insecurity in Nigeria is better examined as a multidimensional geographic phenomenon requiring attention to event frequency, fatality intensity, settlement structure, and household experience.

Keywords: Nigeria, insecurity, conflict exposure, multidimensional poverty, settlement structure, ACLED, household security, geographic analysis.

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1. Introduction

1.1 Background to the Study

Insecurity in Nigeria takes multiple forms, including political violence, communal conflict, farmer-herder conflict, banditry, kidnapping, and violence against civilians. These forms of insecurity are not distributed evenly across the country, and their frequency and consequences can vary substantially between geographical areas. Recent research using conflict-event and household data demonstrates substantial subnational variation in both violent conflict and socioeconomic conditions across Nigeria (Nnaji et al., 2022; Tuki, 2026).

Farmer-herder conflict provides one example of the relationship between insecurity and household welfare. Evidence from rural Nigeria indicates that both the incidence and severity of farmer-herder conflict are associated with food insecurity, with the severity of conflict producing particularly important consequences for affected households (Nnaji et al., 2022). This illustrates that the consequences of insecurity cannot necessarily be understood from the number of incidents alone.

Other forms of insecurity exhibit different spatial characteristics. Research on banditry in northern Nigeria has highlighted the importance of forest spaces, cattle-rustling networks, and weaknesses in local governance and state presence (Onwuzuruigbo, 2021). Similarly, Okoli and Abubakar (2021) examine armed banditry in Nigeria in relation to under-governed territorial spaces and the activities of armed actors. These studies suggest that geographical and institutional context may influence how insecurity emerges and persists.

Socioeconomic conditions provide another potentially important dimension. The relationship between socioeconomic deprivation and insecurity, however, is not necessarily unidirectional. Violent conflict can damage livelihoods, disrupt economic activity, destroy assets, and worsen household welfare. Recent evidence from Kaduna State, for example, finds that greater household exposure to violent conflict is associated with poorer socioeconomic conditions (Tuki, 2026). At the same time, Tuki (2026) notes that the reverse relationship is also plausible: poor socioeconomic conditions may increase vulnerability to violent conflict. The coexistence of deprivation and insecurity should therefore not automatically be interpreted as evidence that poverty causes violence.

The spatial organization of settlements may also matter. Research on banditry and rural insecurity points to the importance of forests, agricultural environments, accessibility, and the distribution of state authority (Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021). However, these observations do not establish that rurality itself causes insecurity. Nigeria's settlement structure is heterogeneous, comprising dense urban centres, semi-dense urban clusters, suburban and peri-urban areas, and rural settlements. Examining settlement structure as a measurable geographical characteristic therefore provides an opportunity to investigate whether different spatial configurations are associated with different levels of recorded insecurity.

A further issue concerns how insecurity is measured. Conflict-event datasets do not constitute interchangeable or complete measures of violence. Raleigh et al. (2023) demonstrate that differences in conflict definitions, inclusion criteria, information sources, and coding practices can produce substantially different representations of political violence. ACLED consequently provides a measure of recorded events within its defined data-collection framework rather than a complete census of all insecurity experienced by populations (Armed Conflict Location & Event Data [ACLED], 2024; Raleigh et al., 2023).

Household surveys provide a complementary perspective. The National Bureau of Statistics (NBS) Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey includes household-level information on security-related difficulties and shocks. The survey's safety and security module identifies, among other categories, armed robbery, community violence, violence against women and children, armed conflict, terrorism, herder/farmer conflict, kidnapping, and banditry (National Bureau of Statistics [NBS], 2023b). Such information captures experiences that are conceptually different from event records and therefore provides an opportunity to examine whether geographic patterns in recorded insecurity correspond with household-reported security experiences.

The present study brings these perspectives together by examining recorded insecurity, socioeconomic deprivation, settlement structure, and household-reported security-related shocks across Nigeria's 36 states and Federal Capital Territory. The study treats event frequency and fatality intensity as separate indicators rather than combining them into a single insecurity index.

The term *peripheral insecurity* is used in this study as a framing concept rather than as a directly measured variable. It refers to the possibility that insecurity may be patterned by the interaction of geographical conditions, socioeconomic disadvantage, settlement characteristics, and uneven security experiences. These dimensions are therefore examined separately rather than collapsed into a composite measure.

1.2 Problem Statement

Nigeria's insecurity literature contains substantial research on particular forms of violence and specific geographical settings. Studies of farmer–herder conflict, banditry, and other forms of violence have generated important explanations concerning livelihoods, resource competition, governance, territorial organization, and household welfare (Nnaji et al., 2022; Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021). However, these studies often examine individual conflict processes or localized settings, making it difficult to determine how different dimensions of insecurity correspond geographically across the country.

A second problem concerns the relationship between socioeconomic deprivation and insecurity. Existing research demonstrates that conflict can adversely affect household socioeconomic conditions, while theoretical and empirical arguments also allow for the possibility that socioeconomic vulnerability may contribute to exposure to violence (Nnaji et al., 2022; Tuki, 2026). A simple cross-sectional association between poverty and insecurity therefore cannot establish the direction of causation.

A third problem concerns spatial structure. Research on northern Nigerian banditry and rural conflict highlights the importance of geographical environments and the distribution of state authority (Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021), but these insights have not necessarily been integrated into a common state-level framework alongside socioeconomic and household security indicators.

Finally, recorded conflict events and household-reported security experiences measure different dimensions of insecurity. Event-based data capture incidents recorded within a defined conflict-monitoring system, whereas household surveys capture reported experiences of security-related shocks. Examining whether these measures exhibit similar geographic patterns can therefore provide complementary evidence without assuming that they measure exactly the same phenomenon.

This study addresses these issues by integrating ACLED conflict-event data, NBS multidimensional poverty and household security data, WorldPop settlement data, and population projections. It uses a state-level exploratory quantitative design to examine geographic variation and statistical associations among these dimensions without making causal claims.

1.3 Research Questions

This study addresses the following research questions:

1. How is recorded insecurity geographically distributed across Nigerian states?
2. Is higher socioeconomic deprivation associated with greater recorded insecurity exposure at the state level?
3. Is settlement structure associated with differences in recorded insecurity across Nigerian states?
4. To what extent do household-reported security-related shocks correspond with recorded insecurity across states?
5. What do the observed patterns imply for understanding security planning in Nigeria?

1.4 Research Objectives

The general objective of this study is to examine the geographic patterning of insecurity in Nigeria and its association with socioeconomic deprivation, settlement structure, and household-reported security experiences.

The specific objectives are to:

1. Examine the geographic distribution of recorded security incidents and fatalities across Nigerian states;
2. Assess the association between multidimensional poverty and recorded insecurity exposure;
3. Examine the relationship between settlement structure and recorded insecurity;
4. Compare household-reported security-related shocks with recorded event and fatality rates; and

5. Discuss the implications of the observed patterns for understanding security planning and locally responsive approaches to insecurity in Nigeria.

1.5 Significance of the Study

This study is significant in three related respects. First, it contributes to the empirical understanding of insecurity in Nigeria by examining geographic variation in both recorded event frequency and fatality intensity rather than treating insecurity as a uniform national phenomenon. Second, it brings together different forms of evidence, including conflict-event data, multidimensional poverty measures, settlement-structure data, and household-reported security experiences, to examine whether these dimensions exhibit consistent geographic patterns. This provides a broader basis for interpreting insecurity than reliance on a single indicator.

Third, the study demonstrates an exploratory quantitative approach to security research that integrates data preparation, normalization, descriptive analysis, correlation analysis, regression, and sensitivity testing. The findings are intended to support further research into geographically differentiated security conditions and evidence-based security planning. Given the observational and state-level design, the study does not seek to establish causal effects or evaluate the effectiveness of specific security interventions.

1.6 Scope of the Study

The study focuses on Nigeria and uses the 36 states and the Federal Capital Territory as its primary units of analysis. It examines recorded insecurity using 2025 ACLED event and fatality data, standardized using 2022 state population projections. Socioeconomic deprivation is measured using state-level multidimensional poverty incidence from the Nigeria Multidimensional Poverty Index survey conducted in 2021/22. Settlement structure is examined using the percentage of state area represented by WorldPop urban-cluster footprints in the 2025 Degree of Urbanisation dataset. Household-reported security-related shocks are derived from the Safety and Security module of the Nigeria Multidimensional Poverty Index survey.

The analysis is exploratory and focuses on state-level geographic patterns and statistical associations. It does not attempt to estimate individual-level risk, establish causal relationships, or evaluate the effectiveness of particular policing or security interventions. The study also recognizes differences in the periods and measurement approaches of the datasets and treats these differences as methodological limitations rather than assuming that the datasets provide direct temporal validation of one another.

2. Literature Review

2.1 Conceptualizing Insecurity

Insecurity is a broad concept encompassing different forms of violence, threats, and security-related experiences. For empirical analysis, however, it is important to distinguish between the measurement of violent events and the broader experience of insecurity.

Conflict-event datasets such as ACLED record events according to defined inclusion criteria and coding procedures. ACLED collects information from a wide range of sources and records characteristics including event type, actors, location, timing, and fatalities (ACLED, 2024). The resulting data provide a systematic means of examining geographic and temporal patterns in recorded political violence and related events.

However, recorded events should not be interpreted as a complete measure of all insecurity experienced by populations. Raleigh et al. (2023) demonstrate that conflict datasets can produce different representations of violence because they differ in their definitions, sourcing strategies, geographic coverage, and coding practices. Consequently, event-based measures are most appropriately interpreted as measures of recorded conflict within a particular data-generating system.

The distinction between event frequency and severity is also important. Two geographical areas may record similar numbers of incidents while experiencing substantially different numbers of fatalities. Research on farmer–herder conflict in rural Nigeria demonstrates that both the occurrence and severity of conflict have consequences for household welfare (Nnaji et al., 2022). The present study therefore retains recorded events and fatalities as separate indicators rather than constructing a composite measure of insecurity.

Household-reported security experiences provide a further dimension. The NBS Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey asks households to identify major difficulties or shocks experienced during the preceding period, including several security-related categories (NBS, 2023b). Such measures capture reported household experiences rather than recorded conflict events.

Accordingly, this study treats insecurity as a multidimensional empirical phenomenon involving at least two distinct forms of evidence: recorded security-related events and household-reported security shocks. These measures are considered complementary rather than interchangeable.

2.2 Conflict and Insecurity in Nigeria

Nigeria's security environment contains multiple forms of conflict that vary in their geographical distribution, actors, intensity, and consequences. Research on farmer–herder conflict demonstrates how disputes involving agricultural livelihoods and resource access can generate significant household-level welfare consequences (Nnaji et al., 2022). The literature on northern Nigerian banditry similarly points to the interaction between armed groups, rural spaces, forest environments, cattle rustling, and weak or fragmented governance arrangements (Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021).

These studies indicate that insecurity cannot necessarily be explained through one general mechanism. Different forms of violence may emerge from different combinations of political, economic, environmental, territorial, and institutional conditions. Osasona (2023), for example, emphasizes the importance of carefully defining armed banditry rather than treating it as an undifferentiated category of insecurity.

This variation supports a national comparative approach in which insecurity is measured using standardized indicators while recognizing that the underlying processes may differ across

locations. Rather than attempting to construct a single explanation for all forms of Nigerian insecurity, the present study examines whether observable geographic associations exist between recorded insecurity and selected socioeconomic and spatial characteristics.

2.3 Socioeconomic Deprivation and Insecurity

The relationship between socioeconomic deprivation and insecurity is theoretically complex. Socioeconomic disadvantage may be associated with insecurity through mechanisms involving livelihood vulnerability, resource competition, institutional weakness, political exclusion, or limited economic opportunities. At the same time, violent conflict can directly worsen socioeconomic conditions through displacement, destruction of assets, disruption of economic activity, and loss of livelihoods.

Empirical evidence from Nigeria illustrates this bidirectional possibility. Nnaji et al. (2022) find that farmer–herder conflict is associated with food insecurity among rural households. Tuki (2026), using household-level data from Kaduna State and spatial measures of exposure to ACLED-recorded conflict, finds that greater exposure to violent conflict is associated with poorer socioeconomic conditions. Tuki (2026) also notes that the reverse relationship remains plausible, meaning that poor socioeconomic conditions may themselves contribute to vulnerability to conflict.

The literature therefore does not justify treating poverty as a deterministic cause of insecurity. Instead, socioeconomic deprivation represents one potentially relevant dimension of the environment in which insecurity occurs. The present study operationalizes this dimension using the National Multidimensional Poverty Index and asks whether states with higher levels of multidimensional poverty also exhibit systematically different levels of recorded insecurity.

This approach is deliberately associational. Because the present study uses state-level observational data from different periods, an observed relationship between multidimensional poverty and recorded insecurity cannot establish whether deprivation causes insecurity, insecurity causes deprivation, or both are associated with other underlying factors.

2.4 Settlement Structure, Urbanization and Insecurity

Geographical settlement structure may influence the organization and visibility of insecurity through accessibility, population concentration, livelihoods, infrastructure, and the distribution of state institutions. Research on northern Nigerian banditry emphasizes the role of forest spaces and territorial environments in facilitating armed activity, while research on rural conflict highlights the importance of agricultural and livelihood contexts (Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021).

These findings do not imply that rural areas are inherently more insecure than urban areas. Instead, they suggest that spatial characteristics may shape the opportunities and constraints surrounding particular forms of insecurity.

A simple rural–urban binary may also conceal substantial variation. Nigeria contains dense urban centres, semi-dense urban clusters, suburban and peri-urban areas, and rural settlement clusters. The present study therefore uses the WorldPop Degree of Urbanisation dataset to

operationalize settlement structure through the geographical footprint of urban clusters (Bondarenko et al., 2026).

The measure used here is a geographical area measure rather than an urban population share. It captures the proportion of a state's geographical area occupied by the relevant urban-cluster footprint. This distinction is important because the spatial extent of urban settlement and the proportion of a population living in urban areas are conceptually different characteristics.

2.5 Household Security Experiences and Recorded Conflict

Recorded conflict events and household-reported security experiences provide different forms of evidence concerning insecurity. ACLED records reported political violence and related events according to standardized coding procedures and a broad range of information sources (ACLED, 2024; Raleigh et al., 2023). Household surveys, by contrast, ask respondents to report experiences that may include security-related shocks that are not necessarily represented as discrete recorded events.

The NBS Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey provides particularly useful information for this purpose. Its safety and security module includes household-reported experiences of armed robbery, community violence, violence against women, girls and children, armed conflict, terrorism, herder/farmer conflict, kidnapping, and banditry, among other categories (NBS, 2023b).

The two measurement systems should not be expected to correspond perfectly. Differences in reporting, event definitions, geographic aggregation, temporal coverage, and source availability can produce divergence between recorded events and household experiences. Nevertheless, correspondence in geographic patterns between independently produced measures can provide useful complementary evidence.

The present study therefore examines whether state-level household-reported security shocks are associated with ACLED recorded event and fatality rates. The analysis does not treat this relationship as evidence that one measure validates the other temporally or causally, particularly because the NBS household survey predates the 2025 ACLED observation period.

2.6 Empirical Gaps

The literature reviewed above provides substantial evidence concerning individual forms and consequences of insecurity in Nigeria. However, several areas remain relevant for further empirical investigation.

First, much of the literature focuses on particular conflict processes or geographical settings. Studies of farmer–herder conflict and banditry provide detailed insights into specific mechanisms, but a national comparison can provide a different perspective on whether broader geographic patterns are observable across states.

Second, the relationship between socioeconomic conditions and insecurity remains empirically and theoretically complex. Evidence that conflict worsens household welfare does not establish that poverty causes conflict, while the possibility of socioeconomic vulnerability contributing to insecurity does not establish a deterministic relationship. A state-level exploratory analysis can therefore examine the geographic association without imposing a causal interpretation.

Third, spatial settlement structure provides a potentially useful contextual dimension that can be measured consistently across states. Existing research on rural and forest-based insecurity suggests that geography matters, but these insights do not justify assuming a simple rural–urban effect.

Fourth, household-reported security experiences and recorded conflict events represent different measurement systems. Examining their geographic correspondence provides an opportunity to assess whether patterns visible in conflict-event data are also reflected in household-reported security experiences.

Finally, there is value in integrating these dimensions within a transparent quantitative framework. The present study combines recorded events and fatalities, multidimensional poverty, settlement structure, household-reported security shocks, and population-standardized rates to examine geographic patterns across Nigeria's state/FCT units. The purpose is not to establish a causal model of Nigerian insecurity, but to identify associations that can inform more detailed sub-state, longitudinal, and causal research.

3. Methodology

3.1 Research Design

This study adopts an exploratory quantitative research design to examine geographic patterns and associations between recorded insecurity, socioeconomic deprivation, settlement structure and household-reported security experiences across Nigeria. Rather than treating insecurity as a single measurable condition, the study separates several dimensions of security exposure and examines their relationships at the state level.

The analysis is guided by five research questions. First, how is recorded insecurity geographically distributed across Nigerian states? Second, is socioeconomic deprivation associated with greater recorded insecurity exposure? Third, is settlement structure associated with differences in recorded insecurity? Fourth, to what extent do household-reported security-related shocks correspond with recorded insecurity? Fifth, what do the observed patterns imply for understanding security planning in Nigeria?

The design is observational and cross-sectional at the principal analytical stage. Consequently, the statistical relationships identified in the study are interpreted as associations rather than causal effects. This distinction is particularly important because the datasets differ in coverage, measurement approach and reference period.

3.2 Unit of Analysis

The primary unit of analysis is the Nigerian state or Federal Capital Territory (FCT). The study therefore contains 37 analytical units: Nigeria's 36 states and the FCT.

A state-level design was selected because it provides a common geographical framework for integrating the principal datasets while maintaining national coverage. The approach also permits comparison of recorded insecurity rates with socioeconomic and settlement characteristics across the country.

The state-level design imposes an important analytical constraint. Relationships observed between states cannot automatically be interpreted as relationships between individuals, households or communities. For example, a state with a high multidimensional poverty rate and a high recorded insecurity rate does not demonstrate that poorer households within that state are individually more likely to experience insecurity. Such interpretations would constitute an ecological inference beyond what the data can establish.

3.3 Study Period and Temporal Alignment

The principal insecurity measures are based on ACLED observations for 2025. Recorded events and fatalities were aggregated to the state/FCT level and standardized using 2022 National Population Commission (NPC) state population projections.

The socioeconomic deprivation measure is the Multidimensional Poverty Index (MPI) incidence reported from the Nigeria Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey conducted in 2021–2022. Household-reported security-related shocks are drawn from the same survey. The settlement measure is based on WorldPop's 2025 Degree of Urbanisation dataset.

The datasets therefore do not represent a single common observation period. In particular, the comparison between the NBS household data and ACLED's 2025 data should not be interpreted as temporal validation. Instead, it examines whether geographic differences in household-reported security experiences correspond to geographic differences in subsequently recorded insecurity.

This temporal alignment issue is incorporated into the interpretation of the results and is treated as a methodological limitation rather than being concealed through artificial harmonization.

3.4 Data Sources

Four principal data sources were integrated.

3.4.1 ACLED

Recorded insecurity was measured using the Armed Conflict Location & Event Data (ACLED) dataset. ACLED provides event-level and aggregated information on political violence, demonstrations and related developments, including information on event type and fatalities. The study used the aggregated Nigeria data available through ACLED for 2025.

ACLED data are treated as records of documented events rather than a complete census of all insecurity experienced in Nigeria. This distinction is important because conflict datasets depend on definitions, coding rules and information sources, and differences in these processes can affect observed patterns (Raleigh et al., 2023).

The 2025 Nigerian data also require explicit documentation of a source-coverage issue. ACLED reports that the loss of a key data-sharing partner in January 2025 created a sourcing gap and that historical data collected through local information networks were subsequently integrated, with the integration completed on 31 August 2026. The revised dataset used for this study therefore incorporates that subsequent coverage work (ACLED, 2026).

3.4.2 National Bureau of Statistics Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey

Socioeconomic deprivation and household-reported security experiences were derived from the Nigeria Multidimensional Poverty Index Survey 2021–2022 conducted by the National Bureau of Statistics (NBS).

The study uses the published state-level MPI incidence as its measure of multidimensional deprivation (NBS, 2022). For the household security component, the study uses the survey's Safety and Security module (NBS, 2023b). The relevant question asked households to identify their three main difficulties or shocks during the previous 12 months. The module includes security-related categories such as armed robbery, violence between communities, armed conflict or warfare, terrorism, herders/farmers, kidnapping and banditry.

Household-level observations were weighted using the survey's household weights when calculating state-level security-shock prevalence. The resulting measure represents the weighted proportion of households reporting at least one selected security-related shock; it is not an estimate of individual-level risk.

3.4.3 WorldPop Degree of Urbanisation

Settlement structure was measured using the Nigeria Degree of Urbanisation dataset produced by WorldPop using WorldPop Global2 R2025A population data and the GHSL GHS-DUG methodology (Bondarenko et al., 2026).

The study constructed an urban-cluster footprint measure representing the proportion of each state's geographical area occupied by the relevant urban-cluster spatial entities. This measure is therefore a geographical footprint indicator rather than a measure of the proportion of a state's population living in urban areas.

The distinction is important because the WorldPop entity layers are spatial representations of settlement classes and are not treated here as mutually exclusive population categories.

3.4.4 Population Denominators

State population denominators were obtained from official 2022 NPC state population projections (NBS, 2023a). These denominators were used to standardize the 2025 ACLED event and fatality counts.

The resulting measures are therefore standardized recorded-event and recorded-fatality rates based on the available 2022 population projections. They should not be described as direct estimates of 2025 population risk.

3.5 Data Preparation and Integration

Data preparation followed a sequential workflow combining spreadsheet-based validation with Python-based statistical analysis.

The initial cleaning and validation of the ACLED, NBS and WorldPop-derived datasets were undertaken in Microsoft Excel. Python was subsequently used to reproduce, integrate and extend the analytical workflow using pandas, NumPy, SciPy, statsmodels, GeoPandas and Matplotlib/Seaborn.

ACLED observations were aggregated by Nigerian state for 2025. State names were standardized across datasets, and non-Nigerian administrative observations, including the South Atlantic Ocean category present in the ACLED administrative data, were excluded from the state-level analysis.

Event and fatality rates were calculated as:

$$\text{Event rate}_i = \frac{\text{ACLED events}_{i,2025}}{\text{NPC population projection}_{i,2022}} \times 100,000$$

and

$$\text{Fatality rate}_i = \frac{\text{ACLED fatalities}_{i,2025}}{\text{NPC population projection}_{i,2022}} \times 100,000$$

where i represents each state or the FCT.

The NBS Safety and Security module was linked to household identification information using the household identifier. The multiple-response security-shock variable was cleaned and coded

into binary indicators corresponding to selected security categories. Household weights were then used to calculate state-level weighted prevalence.

The resulting state-level datasets were merged with the ACLED, MPI, population and settlement measures. The final integrated analytical dataset contains 37 state/FCT observations.

Quality-control checks confirmed that all 37 state/FCT units were represented in the integrated dataset and that the state identifiers matched across the principal data sources.

3.6 Variable Operationalization

The dependent measures of recorded insecurity are:

ACLED events per 100,000 population.

ACLED fatalities per 100,000 population.

These measures are retained separately because event frequency and fatality intensity capture different dimensions of insecurity. A state may record many events with relatively few fatalities, while another may record fewer events with substantially greater fatality intensity.

Socioeconomic deprivation is measured using state-level MPI incidence, expressed as the percentage of the population identified as multidimensionally poor.

Settlement structure is measured using the percentage of state geographical area covered by the urban-cluster footprint derived from the WorldPop Degree of Urbanisation data.

Household-reported security experience is measured as the weighted state-level percentage of households reporting at least one selected security-related shock. Selected categories include armed robbery, community violence, violence against women, girls and children, armed conflict, terrorism, herders/farmers, kidnapping and banditry.

No composite insecurity index is constructed. This decision preserves the distinction between frequency, severity and household experience and avoids imposing an arbitrary weighting scheme across fundamentally different measures.

Table 1*Operationalization of Variables and Data Sources*

Variable	Operationalization	Measure	Source	Period
Recorded insecurity - event frequency	Number of ACLED-recorded events in each state standardized by population	Events per 100,000 population	ACLED	2025
Recorded insecurity - fatality intensity	Number of ACLED-recorded fatalities in each state standardized by population	Fatalities per 100,000 population	ACLED; population denominator from NBS	2025 events; 2022 population projection
Socioeconomic deprivation	State-level multidimensional poverty incidence	Percentage of population multidimensionally poor	NBS Multidimensional Poverty Index	2021/22
Settlement Structure	Area covered by WorldPop urban-cluster footprints relative to total state area	Urban-cluster footprint (%)	WorldPop Degree of Urbanisation	2025
Household-reported security shocks	Weighted proportion of households reporting selected security-related difficulties/shocks	Percentage of households	NBS MPI Safety and Security module	2021/22

Source: Author's compilation based on ACLED, NBS and WorldPop datasets.

3.7 Analytical Strategy

The analysis proceeds in four stages.

First, descriptive statistics are used to examine the geographic distribution of recorded events and fatalities across the 37 analytical units.

Second, bivariate associations are assessed using both Pearson correlation and Spearman rank correlation. Pearson correlation assesses linear association, while Spearman correlation assesses the monotonic relationship between variables and is less dependent on a strictly linear functional form.

The analysis examines the relationships between:

MPI incidence and ACLED event rate;
 MPI incidence and ACLED fatality rate;
 urban-cluster footprint and ACLED event rate;
 urban-cluster footprint and ACLED fatality rate;
 household-reported security shocks and ACLED event rate; and
 household-reported security shocks and ACLED fatality rate.

Third, two multiple linear regression models are estimated. The first models ACLED event rate as a function of MPI incidence and urban-cluster footprint. The second models ACLED fatality rate using the same predictors.

The models are specified as:

$$Y_i = \beta_0 + \beta_1 MPI_i + \beta_2 UrbanFootprint_i + \epsilon_i$$

where Y_i represents either the ACLED event rate or fatality rate for state i .

The regression models are intended to assess whether the observed bivariate relationships persist when socioeconomic deprivation and settlement structure are considered simultaneously. They are not intended to establish causal effects.

Fourth, regression diagnostics are used to assess model fit, predictor multicollinearity, and influential observations. The diagnostic assessment considers model fit, predictor multicollinearity, and influential observations, including R-squared, adjusted R-squared, F-statistics, coefficient estimates, p-values, residual diagnostics, variance inflation factors, and influence measures.

3.8 Robustness and Sensitivity Analysis

Because Borno and Zamfara exhibit unusually high levels of recorded insecurity and influence the distribution of the dependent variables, sensitivity analysis is incorporated into the study.

Borno is retained in the main analysis because it is a substantively important observation rather than an erroneous outlier. This decision is also relevant because the NBS state-level MPI results identify a representativeness limitation for Borno. A separate sensitivity analysis therefore excludes Borno to assess whether the principal associations involving household-reported security shocks remain.

A further robustness analysis excludes both Borno and Zamfara from the regression models. This provides an additional assessment of whether the multivariable results depend disproportionately on the two most influential observations.

The purpose of these analyses is not to remove inconvenient observations or produce a preferred statistical result. Instead, they assess how sensitive the observed associations are to influential cases.

3.9 Methodological Limitations

Several limitations shape the interpretation of the findings.

First, the analysis is conducted at the state level. The results therefore describe geographic associations between states and cannot be interpreted as individual- or household-level relationships.

Second, the datasets have different reference periods. NBS household data refer to 2021–2022, ACLED observations to 2025, WorldPop settlement data to 2025, and the population denominator to 2022 projections. This prevents strict temporal matching.

Third, ACLED records documented events and fatalities rather than all underlying insecurity. The revised 2025 Nigeria data incorporate additional historical information following the later integration of local information networks, but source and reporting limitations remain relevant to interpretation.

Fourth, the population denominator is a 2022 projection rather than a 2025 census enumeration. The calculated rates should therefore be understood as standardized recorded exposure measures.

Fifth, household-reported security shocks capture experiences reported during the NBS survey reference period and are measured differently from ACLED events. The relationship between the two measures should consequently be interpreted as complementary geographic evidence rather than direct event-to-household validation.

Sixth, the WorldPop urban-cluster measure captures geographical footprint rather than population distribution. It therefore should not be interpreted as a direct measure of urbanization in demographic terms.

Finally, the observational design does not permit causal inference. Other factors that may influence insecurity, including institutional capacity, policing presence, road accessibility, armed-group activity, local governance, land-use patterns and historical conflict dynamics—are not directly modelled.

4. Results

Table 2

Descriptive Statistics of Key Analytical Variables

Variable	N	Mean	SD	Minimum	Maximum
ACLED events per 100,000	37	3.806	4.466	0.227	21.582
ACLED fatalities per 100,000	37	7.161	13.283	0.056	64.796
NBS MPI incidence (%)	37	62.641	19.233	27.200	95.500
Urban-cluster footprint (%)	37	18.110	18.112	1.103	63.888
State-level NBS security-related household shocks (%)	37	26.586	15.162	3.426	67.847

Source: Author's analysis of ACLED, NBS, and WorldPop data.

Note: The mean for NBS security-related household shocks represents the arithmetic mean of the 37 states/FCT estimates and is not the national household-weighted prevalence.

4.1 Geographic Distribution of Recorded Insecurity

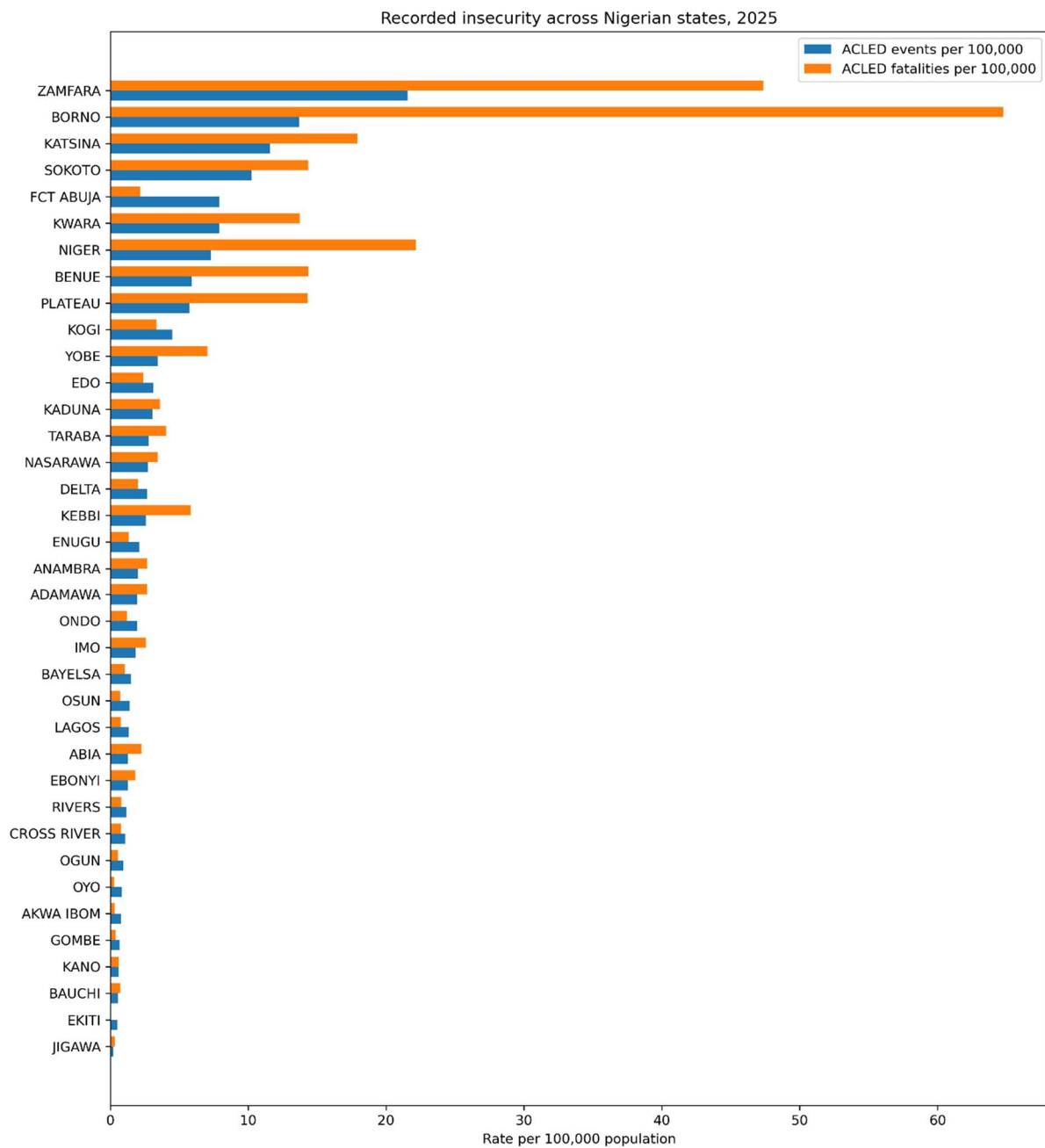
The 2025 ACLED data show substantial geographic variation in recorded insecurity across Nigeria's 37 state/FCT units. Standardization using the 2022 NPC population projections produces different distributions for event frequency and fatality intensity.

Zamfara recorded the highest event rate at approximately 21.58 recorded events per 100,000 population, followed by Borno at 13.68, Katsina at 11.60 and Sokoto at 10.25. The distribution of fatalities differs considerably. Borno recorded the highest fatality rate at approximately 64.80 fatalities per 100,000 population, followed by Zamfara at 47.36, Niger at 22.17 and Katsina at 17.92.

These differences demonstrate that the frequency of recorded events does not correspond perfectly with the intensity of fatalities. Borno, for example, occupies a particularly prominent position in the fatality distribution relative to its event rate, while Zamfara records very high levels on both measures.

The findings therefore support retaining event and fatality rates as separate indicators rather than combining them into a single insecurity index. Figure 1 presents the geographic distribution of the two measures.

Figure 1. *Recorded insecurity across Nigerian states, 2025.*



Source: Author's analysis of ACLED 2025 data and 2022 NPC population projections.

4.2 Socioeconomic Deprivation and Recorded Insecurity

The relationship between multidimensional poverty and recorded insecurity is comparatively weak at the state level.

MPI incidence has a Pearson correlation of $r = .204$ with the ACLED event rate ($p = .225$, $N = 37$). The Spearman correlation is smaller ($\rho = .092$, $p = .588$). For the fatality rate, the Pearson correlation is $r = .226$ ($p = .178$), while the Spearman correlation is $\rho = .227$ ($p = .177$).

The multiple regression results provide a similar picture. In the event-rate model, the MPI coefficient is positive but statistically uncertain ($b = .029$, $p = .464$). In the fatality-rate model, the coefficient is also positive and statistically uncertain ($b = .106$, $p = .376$).

Table 3

Correlation Analysis of Key Variables

Variables	Pearson r	Pearson p	Spearman ρ	Spearman p
MPI incidence vs. ACLED event rate	0.204	0.225	0.092	0.588
MPI incidence vs. ACLED fatality rate	0.226	0.178	0.227	0.177
Urban-cluster footprint vs. ACLED event rate	-0.293	0.078	-0.440	0.006
Urban-cluster footprint vs. ACLED fatality rate	-0.286	0.086	-0.476	0.003

Source: Author's analysis.

Note: Pearson r and Spearman ρ report the direction and strength of bivariate association. p -values are two-sided. $N = 37$.

The results therefore do not provide strong evidence of a state-level relationship between MPI incidence and recorded insecurity in this dataset. They should not, however, be interpreted as evidence that socioeconomic deprivation is irrelevant to insecurity generally. The analysis is limited by its state-level unit, cross-sectional structure and temporal mismatch between the MPI and ACLED data.

4.3 Settlement Structure and Recorded Insecurity

The relationship between urban-cluster footprint and recorded insecurity is more pronounced in the bivariate rank-order analysis.

Urban-cluster footprint has a Pearson correlation of $r = -.293$ with the ACLED event rate ($p = .078$, $N = 37$). The corresponding Spearman correlation is $\rho = -.440$ ($p = .006$). For fatalities, the Pearson correlation is $r = -.286$ ($p = .086$), while the Spearman correlation is $\rho = -.476$ ($p = .003$).

These results indicate a negative bivariate rank-order association: states with larger urban-cluster footprints tend, in this dataset, to have lower recorded event and fatality rates. The result should not be interpreted as evidence that urbanization itself reduces insecurity.

The multivariable models provide a more cautious interpretation. In the multivariable models including MPI incidence and urban-cluster footprint, the urban-footprint coefficient is $-.063$ for the event-rate model ($p = .145$) and $-.176$ for the fatality-rate model ($p = .169$). Neither coefficient reaches conventional statistical significance.

The full event-rate model explains approximately 10.1% of the observed variation in event rates, while the fatality-rate model explains approximately 10.3%. The relatively modest explanatory power and the sensitivity of the coefficients to influential observations indicate that settlement structure alone provides limited explanatory coverage.

When both Borno and Zamfara are excluded, the urban-footprint coefficient falls in magnitude to approximately $-.032$ for event rates and $-.059$ for fatality rates, with neither relationship statistically significant. This indicates that the bivariate negative association is sensitive to influential observations.

Table 4

Multiple Regression Results

Predictor / Statistic	Event rate: Coef.	Event rate: p	Fatality rate: Coef	Fatality rate: p	Interpretation
Constant	3.103	0.293	3.726	0.668	Intercept
MPI incidence (%)	0.029	0.464	0.106	0.376	Positive coefficient; statistically uncertain
Urban-cluster footprint (%)	-0.063	0.145	-0.176	0.169	Negative coefficient; statistically uncertain
R ²	0.101	-	0.103	-	Model explanatory power
Adjusted R ²	0.048	-	0.051	-	Adjusted explanatory power
F-statistic	1.901	0.165	1.958	0.157	Overall model test

Source: Author's analysis

Note: Coefficients are unstandardized. P-values are two-sided. N = 37

Diagnostic checks indicated substantial non-normality in the regression residuals. The event-rate model had residual skewness of 2.08 and a Jarque–Bera test with $p < .001$, while the fatality-rate model had residual skewness of 2.85 and $p < .001$. Variance inflation factors for MPI incidence and urban-cluster footprint were approximately 1.10 in both models, indicating low multicollinearity. Influence diagnostics identified Zamfara as the most influential observation in the event-rate model (Cook's $D = .225$) and Borno as the most influential observation in the fatality-rate model (Cook's $D = .330$). These diagnostics support retaining both states in the main analysis while examining their influence through sensitivity analysis.

4.4 Household-Reported Security Shocks and Recorded Insecurity

The NBS household data provide a complementary measure of security experience. Using household weights, approximately 23.21% of households nationally reported at least one of the selected security-related shocks included in the analysis.

Among the selected categories, the weighted prevalence was approximately 8.76% for herders/farmers, 7.92% for armed robbery, 6.94% for kidnapping, 5.39% for banditry, 3.58% for terrorism, 2.47% for community violence, 0.66% for armed conflict or warfare, and 0.31% for violence against women, girls and children.

The state-level relationship between household-reported security shocks and ACLED event rates is positive and substantially stronger than the MPI associations. The Pearson correlation is $r = .555(p < .001)$, while the Spearman correlation is $\rho = .544(p < .001)$.

The association with fatality rates is also positive: Pearson $r = .470(p = .003)$ and Spearman $\rho = .537(p < .001)$.

The relationship remains when Borno is excluded. For event rates, Pearson $r = .562(p < .001)$ and Spearman $\rho = .534(p < .001)$. For fatality rates, Pearson $r = .592(p < .001)$ and Spearman $\rho = .526(p < .001)$.

The persistence of these associations suggests that states with higher household-reported exposure to selected security shocks also tend to have higher levels of recorded insecurity. However, because the NBS and ACLED measures refer to different periods and capture different forms of evidence, the result should be interpreted as complementary geographic evidence rather than temporal or causal validation.

4.5 Integrated Findings

Taken together, the results provide five main findings.

First, recorded insecurity varies substantially across Nigerian states, and event frequency and fatality intensity do not follow identical geographic patterns.

Second, the state-level association between multidimensional poverty and recorded insecurity is positive in some specifications but generally weak and statistically uncertain.

Third, urban-cluster footprint shows a stronger negative association with recorded insecurity in bivariate rank-order analysis, but the relationship becomes less certain in multivariable and sensitivity analyses.

Fourth, household-reported security shocks have the strongest and most consistent association with both recorded event and fatality rates among the relationships examined.

Fifth, no single socioeconomic or settlement indicator adequately explains the geographic distribution of recorded insecurity. The findings instead support a multidimensional understanding that considers recorded violence, household experience and settlement context together.

5. Discussion

5.1 Geographic Variation in Insecurity

The first major finding is the substantial geographic heterogeneity of recorded insecurity. The distinction between event frequency and fatality intensity is particularly important. A state may experience repeated lower-fatality incidents, while another may experience fewer but more lethal events.

This finding reinforces the methodological concern that assessments of insecurity can change depending on how violence is defined and measured. Conflict datasets differ in their scope, sourcing and coding practices, and these differences can influence conclusions about where insecurity is concentrated (Raleigh et al., 2023).

The results therefore support the use of multiple indicators rather than a single count of events. For security analysis, frequency and severity provide related but non-identical information.

5.2 Socioeconomic Deprivation and Insecurity

The weak and statistically uncertain relationship between MPI incidence and recorded insecurity requires a cautious interpretation.

The finding does not establish that deprivation is unimportant to insecurity. Rather, it indicates that state-level multidimensional poverty incidence does not provide a strong standalone explanation for the cross-state distribution of 2025 recorded events and fatalities in the present analysis.

The relationship between socioeconomic conditions and insecurity may operate in both directions. Recent research using household-level evidence from Kaduna State, for example, finds that exposure to violent conflict can worsen socioeconomic conditions while also acknowledging the plausibility of reverse relationships between poor socioeconomic conditions and conflict exposure (Tuki, 2026).

Similarly, research on farmer-herder conflict in rural Nigeria demonstrates that insecurity can have important socioeconomic consequences, including implications for food security (Nnaji et al., 2022). These findings suggest that the relationship between deprivation and insecurity is unlikely to be adequately represented by a simple cross-sectional correlation between state-level poverty and recorded violence.

The present study therefore contributes a more limited but useful finding: multidimensional poverty incidence alone does not strongly distinguish states according to their 2025 recorded insecurity rates.

5.3 Settlement Structure and Insecurity

The settlement analysis produces a more visible bivariate relationship. States with larger urban-cluster footprints tend to have lower recorded event and fatality rates in the rank-order analysis.

This pattern is compatible with literature emphasizing the role of territorial governance and spatial accessibility in Nigerian insecurity. Studies of banditry have highlighted the importance of under-governed rural and forest spaces, particularly where state presence and effective territorial governance are limited (Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021).

However, the present analysis does not directly test those mechanisms. The urban-cluster footprint is a geographical measure of settlement structure and cannot by itself establish whether differences in governance, accessibility, policing, terrain or other factors explain the observed association.

The weakening of the relationship in the multivariable and Borno/Zamfara sensitivity analyses further supports caution. Settlement structure may form part of the context in which insecurity occurs, but the present evidence does not justify treating it as an independent causal explanation.

5.4 Household Security Experiences and Recorded Conflict

The strongest empirical relationship in the study is between state-level household-reported security shocks and recorded ACLED insecurity.

This finding is substantively important because the two datasets capture different dimensions of security. ACLED records documented events, while the NBS survey captures household-reported experiences. Their positive geographic association indicates that areas with higher recorded insecurity also tend to contain higher proportions of households reporting selected security-related shocks.

The result remains when Borno is excluded, indicating that the observed association is not entirely generated by a single highly influential observation.

Nevertheless, the relationship should not be interpreted as direct validation of ACLED by the NBS survey. The two sources have different reference periods, sampling structures, and measurement procedures. The appropriate interpretation is that they provide complementary evidence of geographic patterning.

5.5 Understanding Peripheral Insecurity

The findings also clarify how the concept of peripheral insecurity should be used.

Peripheral insecurity should not be treated in this study as a single composite variable or as a predetermined condition synonymous with poverty or rurality. Instead, the analysis examines several dimensions that may characterize geographically differentiated insecurity: recorded violence, socioeconomic deprivation, settlement structure, and household security experience.

The results do not reveal a single variable that accounts for the observed distribution of insecurity. This is consistent with the broader literature, which identifies multiple forms and drivers of Nigerian insecurity, including armed banditry, farmer-herder conflict, territorial governance and other forms of organized violence (Nnaji et al., 2022; Okoli & Abubakar, 2021; Onwuzuruigbo, 2021; Osasona, 2023).

The contribution of the present study is therefore less about identifying one universal explanation and more about demonstrating a framework for integrating different forms of evidence.

6. Policy Implications

6.1 Geographically Differentiated Security Planning

The geographic variation observed in the data suggests that national security analysis should distinguish between areas characterized by high event frequency and areas characterized by high fatality intensity.

A monitoring system that relies only on event counts could overlook states where fewer incidents produce substantially greater human losses. Conversely, relying only on fatalities could obscure persistent lower-intensity insecurity.

Security planning can therefore benefit from monitoring frequency and severity as separate indicators.

6.2 Incorporating Multiple Forms of Evidence

The positive relationship between household-reported security shocks and recorded insecurity suggests value in combining administrative or event-based data with household-level information.

Event datasets can identify where incidents are recorded, while household surveys can provide information about how insecurity is experienced by populations. These sources answer different questions and should not be treated as interchangeable.

A more comprehensive security-information system could therefore use both event records and structured population surveys to identify geographic areas requiring closer investigation.

6.3 Settlement Structure as Context

The settlement analysis suggests that spatial structure should be considered when interpreting insecurity patterns. However, the findings do not support a simple rural-versus-urban security model.

Instead, settlement structure can be treated as contextual information that may help identify differences in accessibility, population concentration and the geographical organization of communities. Further research would be required to determine which mechanisms account for the observed relationships.

6.4 Distinguishing Frequency from Severity

The substantial difference between event and fatality distributions has practical implications for security monitoring.

An effective monitoring framework should distinguish how often insecurity occurs from how lethal it is. This would allow analysts to identify locations where repeated lower-level incidents occur as well as locations where fewer incidents generate disproportionately severe consequences.

6.5 Strengthening Local Security Information

The relationship between household-reported security experiences and recorded insecurity also highlights the potential analytical value of systematic local reporting.

Household surveys, community-level reporting mechanisms and other structured sources can provide information that may complement event-based datasets. Such information should be subjected to appropriate validation and methodological safeguards rather than being treated as automatically more accurate than event-based sources.

6.6 Building Evaluation into Security Interventions

Finally, the study highlights the importance of evaluating security interventions using measurable outcomes.

Because the present analysis cannot establish that any particular intervention reduces insecurity, future research should incorporate longitudinal designs capable of comparing changes in event frequency, fatality intensity and household security experiences before and after interventions.

This would move security research beyond describing geographic patterns toward assessing whether specific approaches produce measurable changes in security outcomes.

7. Limitations

The study has several limitations that should be considered when interpreting its findings.

First, the state-level unit of analysis creates an ecological limitation. State-level associations cannot be interpreted as individual-level or household-level relationships.

Second, temporal alignment is imperfect. The MPI and household security data come from the 2021–2022 NBS survey, while the principal ACLED measures refer to 2025. WorldPop settlement data are from 2025, while the population denominators are 2022 projections. The results should therefore not be interpreted as a perfectly synchronized cross-sectional dataset.

Third, ACLED captures documented and coded events rather than the complete universe of insecurity. Although the historical Nigerian sourcing gap identified by ACLED was subsequently addressed through additional local-information integration, data-source and reporting limitations remain inherent to event-based conflict datasets.

Fourth, the use of 2022 population projections to standardize 2025 event and fatality counts introduces denominator uncertainty. The resulting rates are best understood as standardized measures of recorded exposure.

Fifth, the NBS household security variable is based on respondents identifying their three main difficulties or shocks during the survey reference period. It therefore represents reported household experience and is not directly equivalent to the number of recorded conflict events.

Sixth, the WorldPop urban-cluster footprint is a geographical measure rather than a population-share measure. It also does not capture all dimensions of settlement structure, including population density, accessibility or functional connectivity.

Seventh, the study is observational and does not identify causal mechanisms. Relationships between deprivation, settlement structure and insecurity may be affected by omitted variables such as governance, institutional capacity, road accessibility, policing, armed-group presence, historical conflict and environmental conditions.

Eighth, the regression models have relatively modest explanatory power and display non-normal residual patterns. Borno and Zamfara are particularly influential observations. They are retained in the principal analysis because they represent substantively important parts of Nigeria's security environment, while sensitivity analyses are used to examine their influence.

The Borno-and-Zamfara sensitivity analysis reduces the magnitude of the settlement coefficients and leaves the multivariable relationships statistically uncertain. This demonstrates that the observed bivariate settlement relationship should not be treated as a robust causal effect.

Finally, the study has limited explanatory scope. It is designed primarily to identify geographic patterns and associations rather than to provide a complete model of Nigerian insecurity.

8. Conclusion

This study examined the geographic relationship between recorded insecurity, socioeconomic deprivation, settlement structure and household-reported security experiences across Nigeria's 36 states and the Federal Capital Territory.

The analysis produced several important findings. First, recorded insecurity varies substantially across states, and the geographic distribution of event frequency differs from that of fatality intensity. This demonstrates the importance of distinguishing between the frequency and severity of insecurity.

Second, the relationship between multidimensional poverty and recorded insecurity is relatively weak and statistically uncertain at the state level. The finding does not establish that deprivation is irrelevant to insecurity, but it indicates that state-level MPI incidence alone does not provide a strong explanation for the observed distribution of 2025 recorded insecurity.

Third, urban-cluster footprint has a negative bivariate relationship with both event and fatality rates, particularly in the Spearman rank-order analysis. However, the relationship becomes less certain in the multivariable and sensitivity analyses. The result therefore provides evidence of geographic association rather than evidence that urbanization itself reduces insecurity.

Fourth, household-reported security shocks show the strongest association with recorded insecurity. The relationship remains after excluding Borno, suggesting that it is not entirely driven by one highly influential state. Nevertheless, the different periods and measurement systems of the NBS and ACLED data mean that the result should be interpreted as complementary geographic evidence rather than causal or temporal validation.

Overall, the findings suggest that peripheral insecurity in Nigeria is better understood as a multidimensional empirical problem than as a condition explained by a single variable such as poverty or rurality. Geographic distribution, event frequency, fatality intensity, settlement structure and household experience provide different pieces of evidence about the security environment.

The study's principal contribution is therefore methodological as well as substantive. It demonstrates how heterogeneous datasets can be cleaned, standardized and integrated to investigate a security question while explicitly accounting for measurement differences, temporal mismatch, influential observations and the limits of causal inference.

Future research should extend the analysis below the state level and incorporate longitudinal data. Sub-state analysis could examine differences across local government areas and communities, while additional variables could capture road accessibility, institutional presence, policing capacity, armed-group activity, land use and historical conflict exposure. Such extensions would provide a stronger basis for examining mechanisms and evaluating security interventions.

For the present study, the evidence supports a cautious conclusion: understanding insecurity in Nigeria requires attention not only to where violent events are recorded, but also to how severe those events are, how households experience security shocks, and how settlement structures differ across space.

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